

Executive Compensation Differentials by Firm Performance and Gender

Are Female C-Suite Executives in the S&P 1500 Penalized
More for Underperformance?

Torsha Chakraverty · Anahita Chowdhary · Ahaan Jindal

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Professor Claudia Olivetti

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1. Introduction

Women remain strikingly underrepresented at the top of American corporations. As of 2026, women held roughly 11 percent of CEO positions in the Fortune 500. This paper asks whether that underrepresentation is compounded by compensation penalties: do female CEOs and CFOs in the S&P 1500 absorb a larger pay cut than their male counterparts when their firms underperform?

Executive pay is a lot more than just salary. Typically, it combines a fixed base, cash bonuses tied to performance targets, and equity incentives like stock options and restricted share grants that are designed to link executive pay to firm outcomes. When a firm underperforms, the performance-sensitive, non-salary components of compensation are where the greatest changes should theoretically appear. Using an executive-level panel that spans 1998–2024, we use within-industry year variation in market value growth, revenue growth, and stock price growth to ask whether gender interacts with underperformance to produce higher pay penalties for female executives relative to their male counterparts. We further examine structural shifts around the Dodd–Frank Act enacted in 2010 in response to the 2008 financial crisis. Dodd–Frank increased transparency surrounding executive compensation through requirements such as shareholder “say-on-pay” votes, which enhanced disclosure of compensation practices. These reforms may have altered the way boards evaluate and compensate executives, potentially changing the extent to which compensation responds to firm performance.

The central concept we want to test is *gendered accountability*: when firm outcomes disappoint, boards and compensation committees may not always attribute blame in a gender-neutral way. Discrimination, higher implicit performance standards for women, and exclusion from male-dominated informal networks can all cause female executives to absorb a disproportionate share of the cost of poor performance.

Our results provide limited evidence that female executives are systematically penalized more for poor firm performance. Instead, the most consistent patterns point towards differences in how rewards for success are allocated. Female CFOs receive larger compensation reductions when their firms underperform on revenue, while female CEOs appear to receive smaller compensation rewards when their firms strongly outperform. We also find evidence that these disparities may have narrowed following the Dodd–Frank Act, particularly among high-performing female CEOs. Taken together, our findings suggest that gender differences in executive compensation may operate less through uniform punishment for failure and more through unequal rewards for success.

2. Literature Review

This paper draws on some key literature: executive compensation, gender differences in executive evaluation, punishment and accountability in professional labor markets, and theories of pay-setting and corporate governance. While existing research has documented gender gaps in compensation, promotion, turnover, and dismissal, less is known about whether poor firm performance

translates into larger compensation penalties for female executives. Our study contributes to this literature by examining specifically whether *underperformance* affects the compensation of female CEOs and CFOs differently from that of their male counterparts.

On the structure of executive pay, Bertrand and Hallock (2001) establish that women comprised roughly 2.5 percent of top-executive samples in the 1990s and earned about 45 percent less than men in raw terms, though much of that gap is explained by women sorting into smaller firms and more junior titles. Further, Albanesi et al. (2015) document three facts: female executives receive a lower share of incentive pay (accounting for 93 percent of the total compensation gap), their pay-performance sensitivity is lower in normal times (a \$1 million rise in firm value generates a \$17,150 wealth gain for male executives but only \$1,670 for females), and female compensation is *more* sensitive to bad performance and *less* sensitive to good performance than male compensation. Following Gayle et al. (2012), we focus on non-salary compensation because stock- and incentive-based pay constitutes the majority of executive compensation and is the component most directly linked to firm performance and board discretion.

The literature also documents systematic differences in how female executives are evaluated and dismissed. Gupta et al. (2020) show that female CEOs are approximately 45 percent more likely to be involuntarily dismissed than male CEOs, and that strong firm performance reduces the dismissal hazard for men but provides no comparable protection for women. Hadlock et al. (2025) extend this finding to the sub-CEO pipeline using S&P 1500 data from 2001 to 2021: female senior executives are 15–20 percent more likely to depart in any year than comparable men, and this gap substantially widens at the worst-performing firms. The authors interpret this pattern as evidence that female executives are disproportionately blamed for negative outcomes. The pattern extends beyond executive suites: Egan et al. (2022) show that female financial advisors are 20 percent more likely to lose their jobs and 30 percent less likely to find new employment following equivalent misconduct, despite engaging in less costly and less repeated violations than their male peers.

Jensen and Murphy (1990) view pay-performance sensitivity as an incentive mechanism that aligns managers' interests with those of shareholders. Within this framework, compensation differences should reflect differences in measurable performance and productivity rather than discriminatory treatment. Bebhuk and Fried (2004) argue that boards captured by entrenched executives allow pay to drift above competitive levels, with insiders using informal networks and board relationships to resist downward adjustments when performance disappoints (managerial power). If those networks are predominantly male, female executives will be more exposed to formal performance discipline. The glass cliff theory (Ryan and Haslam, 2005) adds that women are disproportionately appointed to leadership at already-struggling firms, meaning that they are structurally more likely to be evaluated against poor-performance baselines from the start.

Together, the existing literature suggests that female executives face greater accountability for negative outcomes through outcomes like higher dismissal rates, greater turnover, and harsher labor-market penalties. Our goal is to examine whether the relationship between firm performance

and executive pay differs by gender, both when firms underperform and when they outperform their industry peers.

3. Data and Sample Construction

3.1 Sources and Sample

Our regression framework models log real compensation—total and non-salary separately—as a function of gender, performance tercile indicators, and their interaction, conditioning on executive age, firm size, and a full set of year and sector fixed effects with standard errors clustered at the firm level. We estimate this for CEOs and CFOs of firms in the S&P 1500, further examining age heterogeneity in penalties and changes in patterns around Dodd–Frank (2010).

We merge two WRDS sources into an executive–firm–year panel covering 1998–2024. Execucomp supplies the compensation measures (salary, bonus, and stock and option grants, which aggregate into total direct compensation (TDC1)) along with executive gender, age, and title. Compustat supplies firm financials (market-value, revenue, year-end stock price, employment) and GICS sector classification. We further restrict to CEOs and CFOs.

3.2 Performance Measurement

We measure firm performance relative to industry peers. We collapse the data to the firm-year level to calculate industry (GICS sector) year-over-year growth in market-value, revenue, and stock price, then do the same for each individual firm and subtract the industry mean from each firm-year average. We classify a firm as underperforming when its growth falls below that sector-year’s average, making the difference negative. Within each sector-year we add additional markers for firms at the bottom third of a given year’s underperforming group, and for firms at the top third of a given year’s overperforming group (above the 67th percentile of firms with positive performance gaps). The middle group of firms serves as the omitted category in most regressions. This tercile design keeps small deviations from the industry average out of the comparison, so that the estimated penalties and rewards reflect firms that clearly diverged from their peers. Underperformance is common in the panel: on revenue, roughly 62% of firm-years fall below the industry mean, against 45% on market-value and 60% on stock price (Appendix Table A5).

3.3 Compensation Outcomes

Outcomes are log real total compensation (TDC1) and log real non-salary compensation (TDC1–salary), both measured in 2015 CPI-adjusted dollars. We emphasize non-salary pay because it is the discretionary, performance-sensitive portion where differential adjustment to under- or over-performance should be concentrated. Consistent with that logic, we observe that almost all significant coefficients we report are larger in magnitude for non-salary pay than for total pay. All regressions control for executive age, age², and the number of employees, and include year and sector fixed effects (and title fixed effects in the pooled age analysis), with standard errors clustered

at the firm level.

4. Summary Statistics

Differences between male and female executives, and between the firms they lead, are modest for CEOs and larger for CFOs (Table 1; CFO and pooled panels in the Appendix).

CEOs. Male CEOs out-earn female CEOs only trivially and insignificantly. Female CEOs run firms that are significantly larger by revenue (a mean of \$9.1bn versus \$6.5bn) but statistically indistinguishable on market-value and stock price. The one systematic difference is in exposure to poor performance: female-led firms appear in the bottom third of market-value and stock-price growth significantly more often than male-led firms. That over-representation in struggling firms could be an indicator of the “glass cliff” (Ryan and Haslam, 2005), which is the tendency to appoint female executives to leadership positions in struggling firms. Since our regressions interact gender with the performance terciles, this over-representation should not bias our estimates, as women and men are compared within the same performance group.

CFOs. For CFOs, these summary figures differ. Female CFOs earn significantly *more* than male CFOs in raw terms (8% more on total pay) and lead larger firms on both revenue and market-value. This substantial difference in average market-value (\$21.1bn versus \$10.8bn) may drive female CFOs’ higher pay. The bottom-third over-representation seen for CEOs is absent, and male CFOs actually fall into the market-value bottom third more often.

Table 1: Selected summary statistics by gender, CEOs

Variable	Male mean	Female mean	Male – Female	<i>p</i> -value
Real total comp. (\$000s)	6,250.4	6,091.8	158.5	0.763
Real non-salary comp. (\$000s)	5,473.3	5,324.8	148.6	0.777
Market-value (\$M)	11,376.5	11,841.4	−464.9	0.706
Revenue (\$M)	6,489.8	9,068.4	−2,578.6	0.000***
Stock price (\$)	67.6	53.8	13.8	0.606
Bottom third (mkt. value)	0.213	0.237	−0.024	0.008***
Bottom third (stock price)	0.217	0.239	−0.022	0.010**

Real 2015 dollars. CFO and pooled panels (and the full variable list) in the Appendix. **p* < .10, ***p* < .05, ****p* < .01.

5. Empirical Design 1: Multivariate Regressions

5.1 Specification

Our first specification interacts gender with the performance terciles,

$$\ln C_{it} = \beta_0 + \beta_1 \text{Female}_i + \beta_2 \text{Bottom}_{it}^m + \beta_3 \text{Top}_{it}^m \\ + \beta_4 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Bottom}_{it}^m) + \beta_5 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Top}_{it}^m) + X'_{it} \Lambda + \gamma_t + \delta_s + \varepsilon_{it},$$

where $\ln C_{it}$ is log real compensation for executive i in year t ; Female_i is an indicator equal to one for female executives; Bottom_{it}^m is an indicator equal to one if firm i belongs to the bottom tercile of underperformers under performance metric m , while Top_{it}^m is an indicator equal to one if the firm belongs to the top tercile of overperformers. Performance is measured relative to the industry-year average for metric m (market-value, revenue, or stock price growth). β_4 and β_5 capture whether performance penalties and rewards differ by gender; X_{it} is a vector of controls (executive age, age^2 , and log number of employees as a proxy for firm size); Λ is the corresponding coefficient vector; γ_t and δ_s are year and sector fixed effects; and ε_{it} is the error term, with standard errors clustered at the firm level. We estimate this specification separately for CEOs and CFOs, for salary (see appendix) and non-salary compensation, and for each performance metric m . The middle tercile is omitted, so β_2 and β_3 measure the pay gap at under- and over-performing firms relative to firms growing near their industry average, and β_4 and β_5 ask whether those gaps differ for women.

5.2 Results

Table 2: Gender and the pay–performance relationship: non-salary compensation

	Market-value	Revenue	Stock price
<i>Panel A. CEOs</i>			
Female	−0.089	−0.083	−0.089
Bottom third	−0.290***	−0.199***	−0.256***
Top third	0.038	0.174***	0.026
Female × Bottom	−0.002	0.035	−0.009
Female × Top	−0.066	−0.210	−0.067
Observations	49,952	56,787	55,677
R^2	0.2336	0.2213	0.2254
<i>Panel B. CFOs</i>			
Female	−0.048	0.029	−0.034
Bottom third	−0.275***	−0.126***	−0.257***
Top third	0.094***	0.221***	0.056*
Female × Bottom	0.033	−0.225**	0.061
Female × Top	−0.033	−0.046	−0.021
Observations	19,064	21,479	21,127
R^2	0.2530	0.2408	0.2438

Dependent variable: log real non-salary compensation. Middle performance tercile omitted. All columns include age, age^2 , log employment, and year and sector fixed effects; SEs clustered by firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$. Full coefficients and total-compensation versions in Appendix.

The clearest pattern in the baseline results is that pay follows performance primarily for underperformers. The bottom-third coefficient is large, negative, and significant for both roles on all three metrics. For CEOs it runs about −15 to −17% on total compensation and −25 to −29%

on non-salary pay;¹ for CFOs, -13 to -15% on total and as much as -28% on non-salary. The overperformance reward (β_3) is smaller and statistically significant mainly on revenue, where the coefficient is positive and significant for both roles. Boards, in other words, cut discretionary pay sharply when a firm lags its industry but reward only modestly when it leads.

At the same time, there is no consistent unconditional gender pay gap. The *Female* coefficient is statistically insignificant in every full-sample specification (Table 2, and Appendix Tables A6–A12), echoing the summary statistics—once firm size, sector, year, and performance are held fixed, the top two female and male executives do not receive different pay on average.

Gender differences do emerge, however, in regressions that use revenue as the performance metric. For CFOs, the *Female* $\times$ *Bottom* interaction on revenue is negative and significant (-0.225 on non-salary pay, $p = 0.014$): female CFOs whose firms underperform on revenue receive an additional penalty of roughly 22% in discretionary pay beyond the penalty male CFOs face. For CEOs, the same interaction is insignificant.

A similar result in revenue appears in the CEO group when, in a second set of regressions, the sample is restricted to the performance extremes (4C, Appendix Table A18):

$$\ln C_{it} = \beta_0 + \beta_1 \text{Female}_i + \beta_2 \text{Bottom}_{it}^m + \beta_3 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Bottom}_{it}^m) + X'_{it} \Lambda + \gamma_t + \delta_s + \varepsilon_{it},$$

where the sample is restricted to $\text{Bottom}_{it}^m = 1$ or $\text{Top}_{it}^m = 1$, with the top third as the omitted reference category.

These regressions simply compare the bottom tercile of performers to the top to better understand whether these effects were amplified for the extremes. The *Female* coefficient becomes negative and significant (-0.297 , $p = 0.037$), indicating that among top-performing firms, female CEOs earn approximately 30% less than comparable male CEOs. The *Female* $\times$ *Bottom* coefficient is positive and nearly significant ($+0.239$, $p = 0.101$), indicating that this gender gap is smaller among underperforming than overperforming firms. Because the coefficient on *Female* measures the gap among top performers, the corresponding gap among bottom performers is $-0.297 + 0.239 = -0.058$: female CEOs therefore earn roughly 6% less than comparable male CEOs at bottom-performing firms, compared to roughly 30% less at top-performing firms.

The positive interaction therefore does not imply that underperforming women receive a compensation premium. It indicates that the gender gap is much larger among top performers than among bottom performers, and that the result is driven primarily by weaker rewards for top-performing female CEOs rather than by substantially smaller penalties for underperforming women.

Taken together, these findings point to the same underlying asymmetry. For CFOs, women experience a larger compensation penalty when their firms underperform on revenue. For CEOs, women receive smaller compensation rewards when their firms strongly outperform on revenue. In both cases, female executives capture less of the favorable compensation outcome associated with

¹We read log-point coefficients as approximate percent changes (coefficient $\times 100$). For the larger coefficients, this slightly overstates the exact change.

firm performance, whether through steeper reductions when results are poor or weaker gains when results are strong.

This asymmetry appears only when revenue is used as the performance metric and not when performance is measured using market-value or stock price growth. One possible explanation is that market-value and stock prices are externally determined and influenced by broader macroeconomic conditions, whereas revenue growth may be viewed by boards as a more direct reflection of executive decision-making. Thus, compensation committees may be more likely to attribute revenue outcomes to individual executives. At the same time, given the large number of specifications estimated, it is also possible that the revenue results reflect statistical noise rather than a systematic difference in how male and female executives are evaluated.

5.3 Heterogeneity by Age

The mechanisms that link gender to pay—like board discretion over bonuses, reputation, and the attribution of credit—need not operate uniformly over a career. To study this dynamic, we split the pooled CEO and CFO sample into age terciles and re-estimate the baseline regressions within each, adding title fixed effects (Table 3). We note that this section presents evidence of potential age heterogeneity rather than definitive findings, as the age-based subsamples are considerably smaller and the large number of regressions estimated raises the possibility that some significant findings reflect statistical noise. We do not get any significant results using market-value as our underperformance outcome (Appendix Tables ??, A34), but on revenue, two ends of the career timeline seem to act in opposite ways.

Younger executives. Among the youngest tercile, the *Female* $\times$ *Bottom* interaction is -0.117 (about -11.7%) on total compensation ($p = 0.049$) and -0.183 (about -18.3%) on non-salary ($p = 0.031$). One possible explanation is that executives without long track records provide noisier signals of ability, making compensation committees more reliant on recent performance when evaluating younger managers. Under this interpretation, poor performance may translate into larger discretionary-pay reductions for young female executives than for otherwise comparable men. The corresponding interaction is insignificant for the middle and oldest cohorts, suggesting that this asymmetry, if present, is concentrated early in executive careers and decreases as executives accumulate experience and establish stronger reputations.

Older executives. Among the oldest tercile, the gap appears at the opposite end of the performance distribution: rather than at underperforming firms (as for the youngest), the *Female* $\times$ *Top* interaction is -0.345 on total compensation ($p = 0.004$) and -0.377 on non-salary ($p = 0.020$), large and statistically significant, while the analogous coefficients for the youngest and middle cohorts are near zero. The interpretation of this is that senior women are paid notably less relative to males (-0.345 log points or -0.377 log points based on compensation type), when their firms *outperform* on revenue, consistent with a credit-allocation gap: strong firm performance translates into

smaller compensation rewards for senior women than for otherwise comparable men. The results may suggest that the asymmetry operates through reduced rewards for success rather than larger penalties for failure.

In the bottom-versus-top specification (Panel B), the oldest tercile shows the largest unconditional female disadvantage in the sample: -0.387 on total and -0.516 on non-salary pay ($p = 0.002$)—alongside a large positive *Female* $\times$ *Bottom* interaction ($+0.435$, $p = 0.002$). These results are not contradictory: the positive interaction largely offsets the negative baseline coefficient, implying that the compensation gap for senior women is concentrated among top-performing firms and is substantially smaller among underperformers. Across both panels, the female baseline coefficient becomes roughly more negative from the youngest to the oldest tercile, suggesting that compensation disparities may widen over the course of an executive career.

Table 3: Gender–performance interactions by age tercile (revenue growth)

	T1 (youngest)		T2 (middle)		T3 (oldest)	
	Total	Non-sal.	Total	Non-sal.	Total	Non-sal.
<i>Panel A. Full specification (middle tercile omitted)</i>						
Female $\times$ Bottom	-0.117^{**}	-0.183^{**}	-0.064	-0.081	0.079	0.076
Female $\times$ Top	0.030	0.012	-0.085	-0.164	-0.345^{***}	-0.377^{**}
Female	0.058	0.068	-0.060	-0.092	-0.045	-0.129
<i>Panel B. Bottom- vs. top-third only (top omitted)</i>						
Female $\times$ Bottom	-0.155^*	-0.203	0.018	0.073	0.435^{***}	0.456^{**}
Female	0.072	0.056	-0.149^{**}	-0.263^{**}	-0.387^{***}	-0.516^{***}

Pooled CEOs and CFOs split into age terciles. Coefficients shown; standard errors and full controls in Appendix Tables ??–A35. All include age, age², log employment, and year, sector, and title fixed effects; SEs clustered by firm.

* $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$.

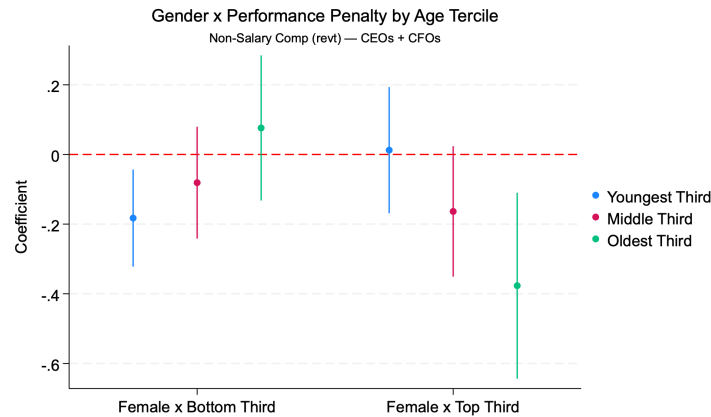


Figure 1: Age-tercile interactions (full specification): non-salary compensation, revenue growth.

6. Empirical Design 2: Triple Differences

If the asymmetries documented above reflect how boards exercise compensation discretion, they should respond to legal changes that constrain that discretion. This motivated our choice of the 2010 Dodd–Frank Act as an exogenous policy shock: it mandated expanded disclosure of executive pay, raising the visibility of and accountability for compensation decisions. We restrict this analysis to CEOs throughout, assuming that credit-based compensation dynamics are strongest for the top role. We ended up selecting this specific shock over other landmark events like the 2017 #MeToo Movement or the Covid-19 pandemic owing to the fact that it likely has the most data available (10+ years pre and post Dodd–Frank) and it was the most significant and direct policy and legislative mechanism that could have differentially impacted male vs female executives. Our focus remains on non-salary compensation as it indexes more heavily on variable forms of compensation—at the top executive levels salaries tend to converge. We also restricted the performance metrics we analyzed to market value (revenue and stock price regressions in appendix).

We estimate two related specifications that answer distinct but complementary questions: the first part runs the difference in differences for female CEOs pre and post Dodd–Frank for under versus overperforming firms (ignoring the middle group); the second part looks at the same triple-differences specification, but now includes all CEOs including the middle tercile of performance. A limitation of our analysis is that we do not find evidence of parallel pre-treatment trends across groups (See Appendix A.8). Because the validity of difference-in-differences estimates relies on this assumption, we interpret our results as suggestive evidence of changes in gender compensation gaps around the reform rather than as definitive causal effects of Dodd–Frank.

6.1 Model 1: Triple Difference at the Performance Extremes

The first specification asks: among CEOs at the performance extremes, did the post-2010 change in women’s pay differ between under- and over-performers? We restrict the sample to CEOs in the bottom and top thirds of market-value growth (dropping the middle segment), and estimate

$$\begin{aligned} \ln C_{it} = & \beta_0 + \beta_1 \text{Female}_i + \beta_2 \text{Bottom}_{it}^{mv} + \beta_3 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Post}_t) + \beta_4 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Bottom}_{it}^{mv}) \\ & + \beta_5 (\text{Post}_t \times \text{Bottom}_{it}^{mv}) + \beta_6 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Post}_t \times \text{Bottom}_{it}^{mv}) + X'_{it} \Lambda + \gamma_t + \delta_s + \varepsilon_{it}, \end{aligned}$$

where $\text{Post}_t = \mathbf{1}[\text{year} \geq 2010]$. Because the top third (of overperformers) is the omitted category, the two-way terms are measured relative to overperformers, and the triple interaction β_6 is the coefficient of interest (full results in Appendix Table A31).

The coefficient on the *Female* term ($\beta_1 = -0.606$, $p = 0.010$) indicates that prior to Dodd–Frank, female CEOs at overperforming firms were paid substantially less than comparable men—a disadvantage of roughly 0.61 log points.

Female $\times$ *Post* ($\beta_3 = +0.610$, $p = 0.014$) indicates that after 2010, the pay of female overperformers rises by about 0.61 log points relative to comparable men—almost exactly offsetting the pre-2010 gap—so that the compensation disadvantage faced by female overperforming CEOs is substantially reduced after Dodd–Frank.

The triple interaction $Female \times Post \times Bottom = -0.516$ (about 0.52 log points, $p = 0.062$), and says that the post-2010 narrowing of the female pay gap was roughly 0.52 log points weaker at underperforming firms than at overperforming firms. The coefficient on $Female \times Post (+0.610)$ captures the post-2010 narrowing of the female gap among overperforming CEOs, while the triple interaction (-0.516) measures how much smaller that improvement was among underperformers.

Adding the two effects gives an estimated post-2010 change of $0.610 - 0.516 \approx 0.09$ log points for underperforming women—close to zero. The gender compensation gap therefore narrowed substantially among overperformers but changed relatively little among underperformers.

The triple interaction is negative, then, not because underperforming women were penalized more, but because it measures their roughly flat change against the overperformers' large gain. Increased transparency may have compressed the gender gap among overperformers while leaving the underperformer gap roughly unchanged, narrowing the *upside-credit* gap rather than the downside penalty. We do not read these results as definite, given that the triple interaction is significant only at the 10% level and the pre/post comparison spans a period in which other governance changes might also have been underway.

Table 4: Triple difference around Dodd–Frank: CEOs, market-value, bottom vs. top

Non-salary compensation	
Female	−0.606**
Bottom third	−0.442***
Female $\times$ Post	0.610**
Female $\times$ Bottom	0.435*
Post $\times$ Bottom	0.184***
Female $\times$ Post $\times$ Bottom	−0.516*
Observations	16,449
R^2	0.204

Dependent variable: log real non-salary compensation; CEOs in the bottom or top third of industry market-value growth (middle dropped, top third omitted). $Post = \mathbf{1}[\text{year} \geq 2010]$, its level absorbed by year fixed effects. Includes age, age^2 , log employment, and year and sector fixed effects; SEs clustered by firm. The triple interaction $Female \times Post \times Bottom$ is the coefficient of interest. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$.

Figure 2 visualizes the estimated female compensation gaps before and after Dodd–Frank for CEOs in the bottom and top thirds of market-value growth. Prior to 2010, female CEOs at top-performing firms faced a substantial compensation disadvantage relative to comparable men, while the gap among underperformers was much smaller. After Dodd–Frank, the gap among top performers narrows considerably, whereas the underperformer gap changes little.

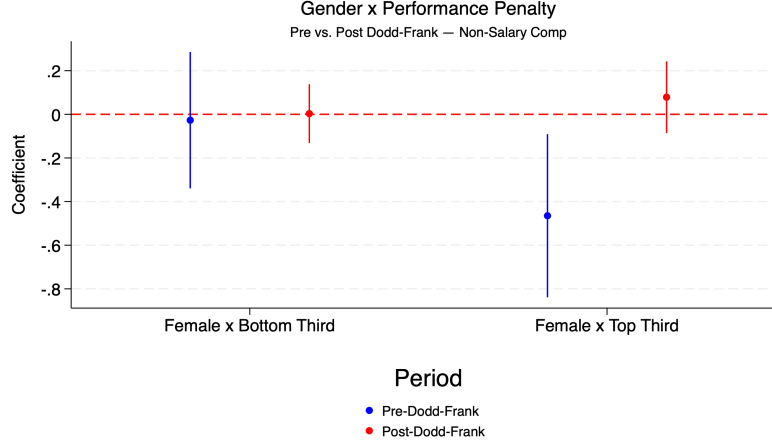


Figure 2: Gender differences in the compensation consequences of firm performance before and after the Dodd–Frank Act. The figure reports coefficient estimates and 90% confidence intervals for interactions between female executive status and indicators for firms in the bottom and top thirds of industry-adjusted market-value growth. Estimates are shown separately for the pre-Dodd–Frank (1999–2009) and post-Dodd–Frank (2010–2024) periods using non-salary compensation as the outcome variable. Note that these are split-sample estimates relative to the middle tercile and are not directly comparable in magnitude to the pooled triple-difference coefficients in Table 4.

6.2 Triple Difference-in-Differences (DiD) Across All CEOs (Bottom, Middle, Top Terciles of Performance)

Our next specification decomposes the prior results by separating out the change among underperformers from the change among overperformers (using the middle as the comparison group), and extending the analysis across more performance metrics. We estimate these triple differences over all CEOs, adding *Post* interacted with gender and with each performance tercile:

$$\begin{aligned} \ln C_{it} = & \beta_0 + \beta_1 \text{Female}_i + \beta_2 \text{Bottom}_{it}^m + \beta_3 \text{Top}_{it}^m + \beta_4 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Bottom}_{it}^m) + \beta_5 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Top}_{it}^m) \\ & + \beta_6 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Post}_t) + \beta_7 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Post}_t \times \text{Bottom}_{it}^m) \\ & + \beta_8 (\text{Female}_i \times \text{Post}_t \times \text{Top}_{it}^m) + X'_{it} \Lambda + \gamma_t + \delta_s + \varepsilon_{it}. \end{aligned}$$

The change in the female–male gap (for the top and bottom) after 2010 is read from β_7 and β_8 , the post-interactions at under- and over-performing firms. Since the baseline female gap is negative (women are paid less), a *positive* interaction moves women’s pay back toward men’s, *narrowing* the gap, while a negative one widens it.

Table 5 reports the difference-in-differences estimates, and they point to the same conclusion. Before Dodd–Frank, the female pay gap was concentrated among overperformers: the *Female* $\times$ *Top* interaction is -0.376 ($p = 0.096$), meaning female CEOs at top-third firms were paid about 0.38 log points less than the female gap at middle-tercile firms. After 2010, that overperformer gap is what moves—*Female* $\times$ *Post* $\times$ *Top* = $+0.396$ ($p = 0.103$, just outside the 10% level) nearly reverses the pre-period disadvantage—while the post-2010 change among underperformers is essen-

tially zero ($Female \times Post \times Bottom = +0.062$, $p = 0.759$). Estimated on the full sample with the middle tercile as the comparison group, the difference-in-differences locates the post-Dodd–Frank improvement among overperforming CEOs, confirming that the gender gap narrowed among overperformers rather than changing how underperformers were paid.

These results suggest that Dodd–Frank may have affected the allocation of compensation rewards more than the allocation of compensation penalties. Before 2010, female CEOs at high-performing firms appear to have received smaller compensation gains than comparable men despite strong firm performance. Following the introduction of greater disclosure requirements, this gap narrows substantially. This pattern is consistent with the idea that increased transparency constrained boards’ ability to differentially reward successful executives, reducing gender disparities in the compensation premium associated with strong performance. Our results suggest that Dodd–Frank may have been particularly important for addressing unequal rewards at the top rather than unequal penalties at the bottom.

Table 5: Difference-in-differences around Dodd–Frank: CEOs, market value, non-salary

	Non-salary compensation
Female	−0.154
Bottom third	−0.290***
Top third	0.038
Female $\times$ Bottom	−0.048
Female $\times$ Top	−0.376*
Female $\times$ Post	0.083
Female $\times$ Post $\times$ Bottom	0.062
Female $\times$ Post $\times$ Top	0.396
Observations	49,952
R^2	0.234

Dependent variable: log real non-salary compensation; CEOs. Post = $\mathbf{1}[\text{year} \geq 2010]$, its level absorbed by year fixed effects. Includes age, age², log employment, and year and sector fixed effects; SEs clustered by firm. Revenue and stock-price specifications are in the Appendix. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$.

An additional event-study around #MeToo (2017) supports the over-time pattern (Appendix Table A32; coefficient plots in Appendix Figures A12 and A13). Estimating the baseline separately before and after 2017, two shifts appear. Among overperformers, the $Female \times Top$ interaction goes from negative but insignificant before 2017 to +0.210 afterward (about 0.21 log points, $p = 0.099$): women at top-performing firms gained relative to women at middle-tercile firms—the same direction as the Dodd–Frank result, and the piece that ties most directly to our mechanism. Among underperformers, the $Female \times Bottom$ interaction flips from −0.317 before 2017 (about 0.32 log points, $p = 0.032$) to +0.215 afterward (about 0.22 log points, $p = 0.025$), indicating that the extra penalty borne by women at poorly performing firms eases after 2017, a change that Dodd–Frank did not produce. Both shifts point in the same direction: a narrowing of the performance-linked

gender gap as external scrutiny rose.

We read these #MeToo estimates more cautiously than the Dodd–Frank results. #MeToo is a diffuse cultural shift rather than a singular policy as a clear treatment, the pre/post windows are short, and other governance changes coincide with the same period, so the 2017 break should be taken as corroborating evidence on the direction of change rather than as identification of a causal effect.

7. Final Results, Mechanisms, and Connections to Key Concepts

Across our specifications, there is limited support for the hypothesis that female executives are systematically punished more for poor firm performance. Gender-performance interactions on the downside are generally inconsistent across roles, performance measures, and age groups. At the same time, some of our significant results reveal several consistent patterns that help clarify where gender differences in executive compensation may arise.

- **Glass Cliff versus Unequal Rewards:** One interpretation of our findings is in the allocation of executives across firms that we find in our summary statistics. Female CEOs appear significantly more likely to lead firms in the bottom performance tercile than male CEOs. This pattern is consistent with the glass cliff hypothesis, which argues that women are more likely to be appointed to leadership positions under difficult circumstances. However, our data cannot establish whether this pattern reflects appointment decisions, firm characteristics, executive selection, or differences in performance itself. We therefore view the glass cliff as a possible explanation rather than a definite causal mechanism. The compensation results also suggest that the observed gender differences may not be solely a consequence of women being disproportionately represented at lower-performing firms. In some specifications, female executives experience larger compensation penalties when firms underperform, while in others they receive smaller rewards when firms overperform. These patterns suggest that differences in compensation may arise not only from where women are represented across firms, but also from how compensation committees translate firm outcomes into executive pay.
- **Credit Allocation:** Several of our findings indicate that gender differences emerge most clearly among executives leading highly successful firms. In the revenue-growth specifications, female CEOs at top-performing firms receive substantially lower compensation than comparable male CEOs. The age heterogeneity results reinforce this pattern because we find that among older executives, the largest gender disparities appear not at underperforming firms but among top performers, where senior women receive significantly smaller compensation rewards despite strong firm outcomes. The Dodd–Frank analysis points in the same direction, as the post-2010 narrowing of the gender gap is concentrated almost entirely among overperforming firms. A possible interpretation of these results is a credit-allocation mechanism. Compensation committees do not directly observe executive ability and instead infer

it from observable firm outcomes. If boards are more likely to attribute strong firm performance to male executives, identical outcomes may generate larger compensation rewards for men than for women. Under this interpretation, the relevant disparity is not necessarily a harsher punishment for failure but a weaker reward for success.

- **The Impacts of Age and Seniority:** Longer tenure and stronger track records should theoretically close the gender gap as female executives prove themselves. Our age heterogeneity results indicate a complicated picture. Among the youngest executives, the female pay disadvantage appears at underperforming firms, consistent with the idea that compensation committees evaluating less-established managers more harshly, especially women. Among the oldest, the disadvantage flips to overperforming firms and is the largest in the entire sample. The largest gender penalty in the sample seems to fall on senior women at overperforming firms. We hypothesize that this might be because longer-tenured male executives with established board relationships, may be better positioned to capture the compensation upside of strong performance, while senior women receive a smaller share of those rewards.
- **Dodd–Frank as a Policy Shock:** The triple difference results clarify which part of the pay gap discretion primarily drives. After Dodd–Frank mandated expanded pay disclosure in 2010, the gender gap among overperforming firms narrows substantially and the pre-2010 disadvantage is largely offset. In contrast, among underperforming firms, essentially nothing changed. Increased transparency therefore may have constrained boards’ ability to differentially reward successful executives, reducing gender disparities among top-performing firms while leaving compensation patterns among underperformers largely unchanged. This asymmetric response points to the fact that perhaps the primary site of gender inequality in executive compensation may not be the punishment for failure, but the rewards for success.

8. Limitations, Conclusions, and the Path Forward

- Compensation committees likely evaluate executives against internal benchmarks like strategic targets, analyst forecasts and division-level KPIs, that are unobservable to us. Our market-value, revenue, and stock price terciles capture industry-gap relative performance but may not account for the metrics boards actually use when making pay decisions, which could distort our estimates of the gender-performance relationship.
- Our sample is restricted to the largest ~ 1500 publicly traded firms, which probably self-selects toward companies with formal ESG commitments, institutional investors, and established HR infrastructure. These are firms most likely to have already reduced gender pay disparities, meaning our findings may understate the gap that exists in the broader executive labor market. Also, as in Bertrand and Hallock (2001), female executives are disproportionately represented in smaller firms.
- We measure compensation only through total pay and non-salary components, but the full

picture of executive welfare is wider—perks, flexibility, working conditions, mental and emotional well-being, and non-monetary forms of recognition or marginalization do not appear in compensation filings. A female executive who is nominally paid equally but tasked with harder mandates, less support, or greater scrutiny could be disadvantaged in ways we cannot analyze with this data.

- The Dodd–Frank and #MeToo analyses rely on broad pre/post comparisons that may overlap with numerous changes in corporate governance and labor-market conditions, and are therefore quasi-experimental event-study results rather than causal, especially since the parallel-trends assumption is not clearly satisfied (Appendix Figures A9–A10).
- Finally, our conclusions are drawn from a large set of specifications with multiple performance measures (market value, revenue, and stock-price growth), compensation measures (TDC1, nonsalary-TDC1), executive roles (CEOs and CFOs), age groups, and subsamples. The key patterns we emphasize do not emerge uniformly across all specifications and are concentrated in particular performance metrics. As a result, our findings are not evidence of any universal gender difference in executive compensation.

In future work, connecting analysis of performance-based compensation with board composition and compensation committee data would be a valuable extension. Knowing the gender composition, tenure, and networks of the decision-makers responsible for setting pay would test whether the credit allocation gap we document is affected by the characteristics of those making the decisions. Further, using internal firm performance benchmarks would also refine the performance measures.

A. Appendix

A.1 Full summary statistics

Table A1: Means by gender, *t*-tests: CEOs

Variable	Male	Female	<i>p</i>
real_tdc1	6250.356	6091.836	0.763
real_nonsalary_tdc1	5473.331	5324.764	0.777
mkvalt	11376.491	11841.421	0.706
revt	6489.827	9068.441	0.000***
prcc_f	67.612	53.811	0.606
gap_mkvalt	0.064	-0.163	0.726
gap_prcc_f	0.138	0.323	0.859
underperform_mkvalt	0.644	0.639	0.607
underperform_prcc_f	0.656	0.655	0.923
bottom_third_mkvalt	0.213	0.237	0.008***
bottom_third_prcc_f	0.217	0.239	0.010**
top_third_mkvalt	0.118	0.125	0.356
top_third_prcc_f	0.114	0.116	0.666

Table A2: Means by gender, *t*-tests: CFOs

Variable	Male	Female	<i>p</i>
real_tdc1	2104.948	2262.125	0.011**
real_nonsalary_tdc1	1700.525	1858.406	0.009***
mkvalt	10814.012	21095.975	0.000***
revt	6212.398	7263.328	0.015**
prcc_f	99.381	63.985	0.345
gap_mkvalt	-0.128	-0.150	0.884
gap_prcc_f	-0.097	0.655	0.276
underperform_mkvalt	0.644	0.620	0.019**
underperform_prcc_f	0.654	0.642	0.187
bottom_third_mkvalt	0.227	0.215	0.176
bottom_third_prcc_f	0.229	0.222	0.395
top_third_mkvalt	0.118	0.127	0.179
top_third_prcc_f	0.117	0.121	0.491

Table A3: Means by gender, *t*-tests: Pooled

Variable	Male	Female	<i>p</i>
real_tdc1	5087.071	4017.291	0.000***
real_nonsalary_tdc1	4414.607	3447.047	0.001***
mkvalt	11213.993	16988.077	0.000***
revt	6410.030	8071.699	0.000***
prcc_f	76.791	59.465	0.415
gap_mkvalt	0.009	-0.156	0.656
gap_prcc_f	0.070	0.508	0.497
underperform_mkvalt	0.644	0.629	0.030**
underperform_prcc_f	0.656	0.648	0.244
bottom_third_mkvalt	0.217	0.225	0.190
bottom_third_prcc_f	0.220	0.230	0.118
top_third_mkvalt	0.118	0.126	0.103
top_third_prcc_f	0.114	0.119	0.318

A.2 Observation counts and underperformance distribution

Table A4: Executive firm-years by title and gender

Title	Male	Female	Total	% Female
CEO	58,582	2,492	61,074	4.08
CFO	23,636	3,073	26,709	11.51
Total	82,218	5,565	87,783	6.34

Table A5: Underperformance dummy distributions (firm-years)

Metric	Overperform (=0)	Underperform (=1)	Missing
mkvalt	87,648 (24.53%)	161,969 (45.33%)	107,659 (30.13%)
revt	115,168 (32.24%)	220,982 (61.85%)	21,126 (5.91%)
prcc_f	116,559 (32.62%)	213,039 (59.63%)	27,678 (7.75%)

A.3 Baseline regressions (full coefficients)

4A. CEOs, full sample

Table A6: (1) Total compensation — CEOs, Market Cap

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.031	0.051	-0.61	0.539	[-0.131, 0.069]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.166***	0.015	-11.10	0.000	[-0.195, -0.137]
top_third_mkvalt	0.011	0.019	0.55	0.584	[-0.028, 0.049]
female_bottom_mkvalt	-0.038	0.056	-0.67	0.506	[-0.148, 0.073]
female_top_mkvalt	-0.068	0.071	-0.96	0.337	[-0.206, 0.071]
Age	0.110***	0.016	6.94	0.000	[0.079, 0.141]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-7.23	0.000	[-0.001, -0.001]
Log employment	0.314***	0.009	34.29	0.000	[0.296, 0.332]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 50357; $R^2 = 0.2212$; clusters = 3569. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A7: (2) Non-salary compensation — CEOs, Market Cap

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.089	0.069	-1.29	0.199	[-0.224, 0.047]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.290***	0.020	-14.55	0.000	[-0.329, -0.251]
top_third_mkvalt	0.038	0.024	1.58	0.114	[-0.009, 0.084]
female_bottom_mkvalt	-0.002	0.078	-0.03	0.975	[-0.154, 0.150]
female_top_mkvalt	-0.066	0.092	-0.72	0.474	[-0.247, 0.115]
Age	0.125***	0.019	6.40	0.000	[0.086, 0.163]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-6.80	0.000	[-0.002, -0.001]
Log employment	0.405***	0.011	38.50	0.000	[0.384, 0.426]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 49952; $R^2 = 0.2336$; clusters = 3566. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A8: (3) Total compensation — CEOs, Revenue

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.035	0.049	-0.71	0.475	[-0.132, 0.062]
bottom_third_revt	-0.109***	0.016	-6.66	0.000	[-0.141, -0.077]
top_third_revt	0.104***	0.025	4.15	0.000	[0.055, 0.154]
female_bottom_revt	0.007	0.056	0.12	0.904	[-0.102, 0.116]
female_top_revt	-0.158	0.097	-1.62	0.105	[-0.349, 0.033]

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Age	0.121***	0.016	7.70	0.000	[0.090, 0.152]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-7.87	0.000	[-0.001, -0.001]
Log employment	0.310***	0.009	33.57	0.000	[0.292, 0.328]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 57271; $R^2 = 0.2118$; clusters = 3777. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

Table A9: (4) Non-salary compensation — CEOs, Revenue

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.083	0.065	-1.28	0.202	[-0.212, 0.045]
bottom_third_revt	-0.199***	0.021	-9.23	0.000	[-0.241, -0.156]
top_third_revt	0.174***	0.028	6.15	0.000	[0.119, 0.230]
female_bottom_revt	0.035	0.079	0.44	0.658	[-0.121, 0.191]
female_top_revt	-0.210	0.138	-1.53	0.127	[-0.480, 0.060]
Age	0.142***	0.019	7.55	0.000	[0.105, 0.179]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-7.86	0.000	[-0.002, -0.001]
Log employment	0.401***	0.011	38.15	0.000	[0.380, 0.421]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 56787; $R^2 = 0.2213$; clusters = 3772. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

Table A10: (5) Total compensation — CEOs, Stock Price

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.035	0.051	-0.70	0.487	[-0.134, 0.064]
bottom_third_prcc_f	-0.141***	0.015	-9.37	0.000	[-0.171, -0.111]
top_third_prcc_f	0.008	0.018	0.43	0.668	[-0.027, 0.042]
female_bottom_prcc_f	-0.034	0.052	-0.66	0.508	[-0.136, 0.067]
female_top_prcc_f	-0.074	0.074	-0.99	0.322	[-0.220, 0.072]
Age	0.118***	0.016	7.33	0.000	[0.086, 0.149]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-7.54	0.000	[-0.001, -0.001]
Log employment	0.307***	0.009	34.37	0.000	[0.289, 0.324]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
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N = 56144; $R^2 = 0.2169$; clusters = 3756. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A11: (6) Non-salary compensation — CEOs, Stock Price

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.089	0.068	-1.31	0.189	[-0.222, 0.044]
bottom_third_prcc_f	-0.256***	0.019	-13.24	0.000	[-0.294, -0.218]
top_third_prcc_f	0.026	0.023	1.15	0.252	[-0.018, 0.070]
female_bottom_prcc_f	-0.009	0.075	-0.11	0.909	[-0.155, 0.138]
female_top_prcc_f	-0.067	0.098	-0.69	0.492	[-0.259, 0.124]
Age	0.134***	0.019	7.06	0.000	[0.097, 0.172]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-7.45	0.000	[-0.002, -0.001]
Log employment	0.394***	0.010	37.88	0.000	[0.373, 0.414]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 55677; $R^2 = 0.2254$; clusters = 3751. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

4B. CFOs, full sample

Table A12: (7) Total compensation — CFOs, Market Cap

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.010	0.039	-0.26	0.792	[-0.086, 0.066]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.151***	0.017	-9.06	0.000	[-0.184, -0.119]
top_third_mkvalt	0.057***	0.020	2.84	0.005	[0.018, 0.096]
female_bottom_mkvalt	-0.019	0.047	-0.40	0.691	[-0.111, 0.074]
female_top_mkvalt	-0.025	0.056	-0.44	0.662	[-0.135, 0.086]
Age	0.075***	0.020	3.82	0.000	[0.036, 0.113]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-3.67	0.000	[-0.001, -0.000]
Log employment	0.264***	0.008	33.03	0.000	[0.248, 0.280]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 19218; $R^2 = 0.3121$; clusters = 2577. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A13: (8) Non-salary compensation — CFOs, Market Cap

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.048	0.059	-0.82	0.412	[-0.164, 0.067]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.275***	0.026	-10.44	0.000	[-0.327, -0.223]
top_third_mkvalt	0.094***	0.029	3.29	0.001	[0.038, 0.150]
female_bottom_mkvalt	0.033	0.077	0.43	0.668	[-0.118, 0.184]
female_top_mkvalt	-0.033	0.085	-0.39	0.696	[-0.201, 0.134]
Age	0.106***	0.034	3.12	0.002	[0.039, 0.172]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-3.13	0.002	[-0.002, -0.000]
Log employment	0.342***	0.012	28.08	0.000	[0.319, 0.366]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 19064; $R^2 = 0.2530$; clusters = 2574. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A14: (9) Total compensation — CFOs, Revenue

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	0.029	0.038	0.76	0.447	[-0.045, 0.103]
bottom_third_revt	-0.069***	0.017	-3.97	0.000	[-0.102, -0.035]
top_third_revt	0.161***	0.024	6.57	0.000	[0.113, 0.209]
female_bottom_revt	-0.117**	0.052	-2.24	0.025	[-0.220, -0.015]
female_top_revt	-0.015	0.065	-0.23	0.817	[-0.143, 0.113]
Age	0.072***	0.019	3.81	0.000	[0.035, 0.110]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-3.56	0.000	[-0.001, -0.000]
Log employment	0.264***	0.008	32.64	0.000	[0.248, 0.280]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 21646; $R^2 = 0.3026$; clusters = 2730. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A15: (10) Non-salary compensation — CFOs, Revenue

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	0.029	0.056	0.52	0.604	[-0.081, 0.140]
bottom_third_revt	-0.126***	0.026	-4.80	0.000	[-0.178, -0.075]
top_third_revt	0.221***	0.035	6.31	0.000	[0.153, 0.290]
female_bottom_revt	-0.225**	0.090	-2.50	0.013	[-0.401, -0.048]
female_top_revt	-0.046	0.089	-0.51	0.610	[-0.221, 0.130]

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Age	0.103***	0.032	3.20	0.001	[0.040, 0.167]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-3.11	0.002	[-0.002, -0.000]
Log employment	0.338***	0.013	26.24	0.000	[0.313, 0.363]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 21479; $R^2 = 0.2408$; clusters = 2726. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A16: (11) Total compensation — CFOs, Stock Price

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.001	0.038	-0.02	0.981	[-0.075, 0.073]
bottom_third_prcc_f	-0.142***	0.016	-8.73	0.000	[-0.174, -0.110]
top_third_prcc_f	0.037*	0.019	1.93	0.053	[-0.001, 0.074]
female_bottom_prcc_f	0.017	0.045	0.37	0.709	[-0.072, 0.105]
female_top_prcc_f	-0.007	0.057	-0.13	0.900	[-0.118, 0.104]
Age	0.070***	0.019	3.62	0.000	[0.032, 0.108]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-3.43	0.001	[-0.001, -0.000]
Log employment	0.257***	0.008	32.02	0.000	[0.242, 0.273]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 21295; $R^2 = 0.3040$; clusters = 2710. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A17: (12) Non-salary compensation — CFOs, Stock Price

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.034	0.056	-0.61	0.541	[-0.145, 0.076]
bottom_third_prcc_f	-0.257***	0.026	-9.96	0.000	[-0.307, -0.206]
top_third_prcc_f	0.056*	0.029	1.96	0.051	[-0.000, 0.112]
female_bottom_prcc_f	0.061	0.074	0.82	0.410	[-0.084, 0.207]
female_top_prcc_f	-0.021	0.086	-0.24	0.807	[-0.190, 0.148]
Age	0.099***	0.033	3.04	0.002	[0.035, 0.163]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-3.00	0.003	[-0.002, -0.000]
Log employment	0.329***	0.013	25.60	0.000	[0.304, 0.354]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
N = 21127; $R^2 = 0.2438$; clusters = 2706. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01					

4C. CEOs, bottom vs. top

Table A18: (13) Total compensation — CEOs, Market Cap

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.091	0.079	-1.15	0.250	[-0.247, 0.064]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.171***	0.021	-8.28	0.000	[-0.212, -0.131]
female_bottom_mkvalt	0.025	0.077	0.32	0.749	[-0.127, 0.176]
Age	0.112***	0.018	6.34	0.000	[0.078, 0.147]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-6.59	0.000	[-0.001, -0.001]
Log employment	0.300***	0.010	29.92	0.000	[0.280, 0.320]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				
N = 16636; $R^2 = 0.2045$; clusters = 3174. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01					

Table A19: (14) Non-salary compensation — CEOs, Market Cap

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.148	0.103	-1.43	0.152	[-0.350, 0.055]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.328***	0.027	-12.32	0.000	[-0.380, -0.276]
female_bottom_mkvalt	0.058	0.102	0.57	0.568	[-0.141, 0.258]
Age	0.146***	0.025	5.78	0.000	[0.097, 0.196]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-6.19	0.000	[-0.002, -0.001]
Log employment	0.398***	0.013	29.95	0.000	[0.372, 0.424]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				
N = 16449; $R^2 = 0.2029$; clusters = 3169. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01					

Table A20: (15) Total compensation — CEOs, Revenue

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.192*	0.099	-1.95	0.051	[-0.386, 0.001]
bottom_third_revt	-0.212***	0.028	-7.70	0.000	[-0.266, -0.158]
female_bottom_revt	0.158	0.101	1.56	0.118	[-0.040, 0.356]

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Age	0.125***	0.017	7.56	0.000	[0.092, 0.157]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-7.78	0.000	[-0.001, -0.001]
Log employment	0.303***	0.011	26.66	0.000	[0.281, 0.325]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 18848; $R^2 = 0.2058$; clusters = 3344. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

Table A21: (16) Non-salary compensation — CEOs, Revenue

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.297**	0.142	-2.09	0.037	[-0.576, -0.018]
bottom_third_revt	-0.381***	0.034	-11.34	0.000	[-0.446, -0.315]
female_bottom_revt	0.239	0.146	1.64	0.101	[-0.047, 0.525]
Age	0.166***	0.023	7.30	0.000	[0.122, 0.211]
Age ²	-0.002***	0.000	-7.73	0.000	[-0.002, -0.001]
Log employment	0.403***	0.013	30.53	0.000	[0.377, 0.429]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 18615; $R^2 = 0.2148$; clusters = 3334. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

Table A22: (17) Total compensation — CEOs, Stock Price

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.100	0.079	-1.26	0.209	[-0.255, 0.056]
bottom_third_prcc_f	-0.143***	0.019	-7.64	0.000	[-0.180, -0.107]
female_bottom_prcc_f	0.042	0.080	0.53	0.597	[-0.115, 0.200]
Age	0.113***	0.017	6.63	0.000	[0.080, 0.147]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-6.88	0.000	[-0.001, -0.001]
Log employment	0.300***	0.009	31.93	0.000	[0.282, 0.319]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 18484; $R^2 = 0.2065$; clusters = 3396. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

Table A23: (18) Non-salary compensation — CEOs, Stock Price

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.147	0.102	-1.43	0.152	[-0.348, 0.054]
bottom_third_prcc_f	-0.280***	0.025	-11.39	0.000	[-0.328, -0.232]
female_bottom_prcc_f	0.064	0.108	0.60	0.551	[-0.147, 0.276]
Age	0.133***	0.024	5.63	0.000	[0.087, 0.180]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-6.05	0.000	[-0.002, -0.001]
Log employment	0.392***	0.013	30.00	0.000	[0.366, 0.418]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 18287; $R^2 = 0.1930$; clusters = 3391. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

*4D. CFOs, bottom vs. top***Table A24: (19)** Total compensation — CFOs, Market Cap

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.046	0.062	-0.74	0.458	[-0.166, 0.075]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.204***	0.022	-9.27	0.000	[-0.248, -0.161]
female_bottom_mkvalt	0.014	0.063	0.22	0.824	[-0.110, 0.139]
Age	0.070***	0.023	2.99	0.003	[0.024, 0.115]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-3.01	0.003	[-0.001, -0.000]
Log employment	0.257***	0.010	26.72	0.000	[0.239, 0.276]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 6563; $R^2 = 0.2758$; clusters = 2054. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A25: (20) Non-salary compensation — CFOs, Market Cap

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.100	0.093	-1.08	0.282	[-0.281, 0.082]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.368***	0.033	-11.16	0.000	[-0.432, -0.303]
female_bottom_mkvalt	0.075	0.102	0.73	0.464	[-0.125, 0.275]
Age	0.099**	0.039	2.55	0.011	[0.023, 0.174]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-2.70	0.007	[-0.002, -0.000]
Log employment	0.345***	0.015	22.32	0.000	[0.314, 0.375]
Year fixed effects	Yes				

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 6479; $R^2 = 0.2260$; clusters = 2050. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

Table A26: (21) Total compensation — CFOs, Revenue

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	0.008	0.067	0.12	0.908	[-0.123, 0.139]
bottom_third_revt	-0.236***	0.028	-8.52	0.000	[-0.290, -0.182]
female_bottom_revt	-0.105	0.077	-1.36	0.174	[-0.257, 0.046]
Age	0.078***	0.022	3.46	0.001	[0.034, 0.122]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-3.41	0.001	[-0.001, -0.000]
Log employment	0.254***	0.010	25.73	0.000	[0.235, 0.274]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 7307; $R^2 = 0.2851$; clusters = 2214. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

Table A27: (22) Non-salary compensation — CFOs, Revenue

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.028	0.092	-0.30	0.763	[-0.207, 0.152]
bottom_third_revt	-0.362***	0.041	-8.84	0.000	[-0.443, -0.282]
female_bottom_revt	-0.182	0.117	-1.55	0.121	[-0.412, 0.048]
Age	0.105***	0.036	2.89	0.004	[0.034, 0.176]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-2.98	0.003	[-0.002, -0.000]
Log employment	0.337***	0.015	21.80	0.000	[0.306, 0.367]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 7209; $R^2 = 0.2333$; clusters = 2204. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

Table A28: (23) Total compensation — CFOs, Stock Price

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.014	0.063	-0.22	0.822	[-0.138, 0.110]
bottom_third_prcc_f	-0.178***	0.021	-8.63	0.000	[-0.219, -0.138]
female_bottom_prcc_f	0.031	0.064	0.48	0.629	[-0.094, 0.155]

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Age	0.069***	0.023	2.92	0.003	[0.023, 0.115]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-2.92	0.004	[-0.001, -0.000]
Log employment	0.253***	0.010	25.48	0.000	[0.233, 0.272]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 7294; $R^2 = 0.2721$; clusters = 2215. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

Table A29: (24) Non-salary compensation — CFOs, Stock Price

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.066	0.098	-0.68	0.498	[-0.258, 0.125]
bottom_third_prcc_f	-0.314***	0.032	-9.73	0.000	[-0.377, -0.251]
female_bottom_prcc_f	0.089	0.100	0.89	0.373	[-0.107, 0.285]
Age	0.099**	0.039	2.53	0.011	[0.022, 0.176]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-2.65	0.008	[-0.002, -0.000]
Log employment	0.332***	0.017	19.98	0.000	[0.299, 0.365]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 7199; $R^2 = 0.2150$; clusters = 2210. SEs clustered on firm. * p<.10, ** p<.05, *** p<.01

A.4 Triple-difference specification (DDD)

Table A30: Triple difference (DDD): CEOs, market value, bottom vs. top — total compensation

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.398**	0.159	-2.51	0.012	[-0.709, -0.087]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.218***	0.036	-6.01	0.000	[-0.289, -0.147]
Female $\times$ Post	0.402**	0.175	2.30	0.021	[0.060, 0.745]
female_bottom_mkvalt	0.268	0.167	1.60	0.109	[-0.059, 0.595]
post2010_bottom_mv	0.076*	0.045	1.70	0.088	[-0.011, 0.164]
female_post2010_bottom_mv	-0.324*	0.185	-1.75	0.079	[-0.686, 0.038]
Age	0.112***	0.018	6.32	0.000	[0.077, 0.147]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-6.58	0.000	[-0.001, -0.001]
Log employment	0.300***	0.010	29.94	0.000	[0.280, 0.320]
Year fixed effects	Yes				

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 16636; $R^2 = 0.2049$; clusters = 3174. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

Table A31: Triple difference (DDD): CEOs, market value, bottom vs. top — non-salary compensation

Variable	Coef.	SE	t	$P > t $	[95% CI]
Female	-0.606**	0.234	-2.59	0.010	[-1.065, -0.148]
bottom_third_mkvalt	-0.442***	0.044	-10.12	0.000	[-0.527, -0.356]
female_post2010	0.610**	0.248	2.46	0.014	[0.125, 1.096]
female_bottom_mkvalt	0.435*	0.247	1.77	0.078	[-0.048, 0.919]
post2010_bottom_mv	0.184***	0.055	3.35	0.001	[0.077, 0.292]
female_post2010_bottom_mv	-0.516*	0.276	-1.87	0.062	[-1.057, 0.025]
Age	0.146***	0.025	5.76	0.000	[0.096, 0.195]
Age ²	-0.001***	0.000	-6.18	0.000	[-0.002, -0.001]
Log employment	0.398***	0.013	30.01	0.000	[0.372, 0.424]
Constant	3.891***	0.718	5.42	0.000	[2.483, 5.300]
Year fixed effects	Yes				
Sector fixed effects	Yes				

N = 16,449; $R^2 = 0.204$; clusters = 3,169. Sample: CEOs in the bottom or top third of industry market-value growth (middle dropped, top third omitted). Post = $1[\text{year} \geq 2010]$, its level absorbed by year fixed effects. SEs clustered on firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$

A.5 #MeToo event windows

Table A32: #MeToo: female $\times$ performance, pre vs. post (CEOs, market-value, non-salary)

	Pre (2010–2016)	Post (2017–2024)
Female	0.005	-0.134*
Bottom third	-0.261***	-0.304***
Top third	-0.061	0.020
Female $\times$ Bottom	-0.317**	0.215**
Female $\times$ Top	-0.176	0.210*
Observations	15,170	15,460
R^2	0.2545	0.2202

All columns include age, age², log employment, and year and sector fixed effects; SEs clustered by firm. * $p < .10$, ** $p < .05$, *** $p < .01$.

A.6 Age-tercile regressions (full coefficients)

Table A33: Age Tercile Results: Market-Value Growth, Full Specification

	Age T1 (Youngest)		Age T2 (Middle)		Age T3 (Oldest)	
	Total	Non-Sal.	Total	Non-Sal.	Total	Non-Sal.
Female	0.041 (0.047)	0.026 (0.058)	−0.083** (0.038)	−0.148** (0.059)	−0.039 (0.063)	−0.121 (0.091)
Bot. Mkt. Val.	−0.144*** (0.021)	−0.266*** (0.028)	−0.145*** (0.018)	−0.274*** (0.026)	−0.190*** (0.024)	−0.309*** (0.029)
Top Mkt. Val.	0.041 (0.028)	0.075** (0.033)	0.032 (0.023)	0.069** (0.031)	−0.002 (0.030)	0.015 (0.036)
Female × Bot.	−0.024 (0.065)	0.006 (0.088)	−0.012 (0.055)	0.082 (0.084)	−0.085 (0.071)	−0.086 (0.108)
Female × Top	−0.026 (0.072)	−0.009 (0.099)	−0.051 (0.076)	−0.082 (0.106)	−0.055 (0.106)	−0.071 (0.150)
Age	0.086* (0.046)	0.179*** (0.062)	0.186 (0.149)	0.273 (0.232)	−0.070 (0.049)	−0.058 (0.068)
Age ²	−0.001 (0.001)	−0.002*** (0.001)	−0.002 (0.001)	−0.002 (0.002)	0.000 (0.000)	0.000 (0.001)
Log Employment	0.261*** (0.012)	0.350*** (0.013)	0.309*** (0.009)	0.394*** (0.012)	0.326*** (0.012)	0.416*** (0.015)
CFO Fixed Effect	−0.857*** (0.029)	−1.008*** (0.030)	−0.955*** (0.019)	−1.087*** (0.027)	−0.973*** (0.031)	−1.148*** (0.047)
<i>N</i>	23,259	23,036	24,118	23,994	22,198	21,986
<i>R</i> ²	0.272	0.265	0.353	0.306	0.281	0.280
Clusters	2,891	2,889	2,994	2,994	2,680	2,668
Year, sector, and title fixed effects included. Standard errors clustered at the firm level. * <i>p</i> < 0.10, ** <i>p</i> < 0.05, *** <i>p</i> < 0.01.						

Notes. Sample: pooled CEOs and CFOs split by age tercile. Performance measure: market-value growth terciles (industry-adjusted within sector-year). No gender-performance interaction coefficient is significant in any column.

Table A34: Age Tercile Results: Market-Value Growth, Bottom vs. Top

	Age T1 (Youngest)		Age T2 (Middle)		Age T3 (Oldest)	
	Total	Non-Sal.	Total	Non-Sal.	Total	Non-Sal.
Female	−0.004 (0.075)	−0.002 (0.102)	−0.123 (0.079)	−0.227** (0.111)	−0.082 (0.118)	−0.179 (0.170)
Bot. Mkt. Val.	−0.180*** (0.029)	−0.341*** (0.036)	−0.169*** (0.025)	−0.336*** (0.035)	−0.190*** (0.031)	−0.335*** (0.040)
Female × Bot.	−0.000 (0.078)	0.006 (0.111)	0.039 (0.090)	0.165 (0.126)	−0.033 (0.121)	−0.026 (0.171)
Age	0.231*** (0.059)	0.356*** (0.087)	0.369 (0.324)	0.899* (0.509)	−0.080 (0.063)	−0.028 (0.094)
Age ²	−0.002*** (0.001)	−0.004*** (0.001)	−0.003 (0.003)	−0.008* (0.005)	0.000 (0.000)	−0.000 (0.001)
Log Employment	0.247*** (0.011)	0.328*** (0.016)	0.303*** (0.010)	0.395*** (0.016)	0.312*** (0.015)	0.426*** (0.019)
CFO Fixed Effect	−0.836*** (0.032)	−0.972*** (0.041)	−0.960*** (0.026)	−1.101*** (0.043)	−0.948*** (0.043)	−1.127*** (0.065)
<i>N</i>	8,261	8,160	7,807	7,741	7,131	7,027
<i>R</i> ²	0.256	0.225	0.353	0.272	0.249	0.258
Clusters	2,322	2,313	2,431	2,427	2,122	2,107

Year, sector, and title fixed effects included. Top tercile omitted. Standard errors clustered at the firm level. * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Notes. Sample restricted to firms in the bottom and top market-value terciles; top tercile is the omitted category. No gender–performance interaction is significant in any column.

Table A35: Age Tercile Results: Revenue Growth, Bottom vs. Top

	Age T1 (Youngest)		Age T2 (Middle)		Age T3 (Oldest)	
	Total	Non-Sal.	Total	Non-Sal.	Total	Non-Sal.
Female	0.072 (0.086)	0.056 (0.112)	−0.149** (0.075)	−0.263** (0.115)	−0.387*** (0.123)	−0.516*** (0.163)
Bot. Revenue	−0.212*** (0.034)	−0.339*** (0.044)	−0.166*** (0.040)	−0.336*** (0.045)	−0.280*** (0.037)	−0.453*** (0.048)
Female × Bot.	−0.155* (0.089)	−0.203 (0.128)	0.018 (0.088)	0.073 (0.135)	0.435*** (0.138)	0.456** (0.189)
Age	0.152** (0.059)	0.307*** (0.094)	0.052 (0.292)	0.292 (0.454)	−0.025 (0.074)	−0.044 (0.096)
Age ²	−0.001** (0.001)	−0.003*** (0.001)	−0.000 (0.003)	−0.003 (0.004)	−0.000 (0.001)	−0.000 (0.001)
Log Employment	0.253*** (0.012)	0.340*** (0.015)	0.296*** (0.013)	0.392*** (0.016)	0.319*** (0.016)	0.422*** (0.019)
CFO Fixed Effect	−0.829*** (0.029)	−0.939*** (0.039)	−0.934*** (0.027)	−1.086*** (0.041)	−0.914*** (0.042)	−1.075*** (0.060)
<i>N</i>	9,429	9,290	8,765	8,688	7,961	7,846
<i>R</i> ²	0.265	0.232	0.313	0.278	0.254	0.267
Clusters	2,472	2,464	2,566	2,561	2,289	2,273

Year, sector, and title fixed effects included. Top tercile omitted. Standard errors clustered at the firm level. * $p < 0.10$, ** $p < 0.05$, *** $p < 0.01$.

Notes. Full-coefficient output corresponding to the revenue specification in Panel B of Table 3. Sample restricted to bottom- and top-tercile firms; top tercile is the omitted category. The significant Female × Bot. coefficient for age T3 is discussed in the main text.

A.7 Descriptive figures

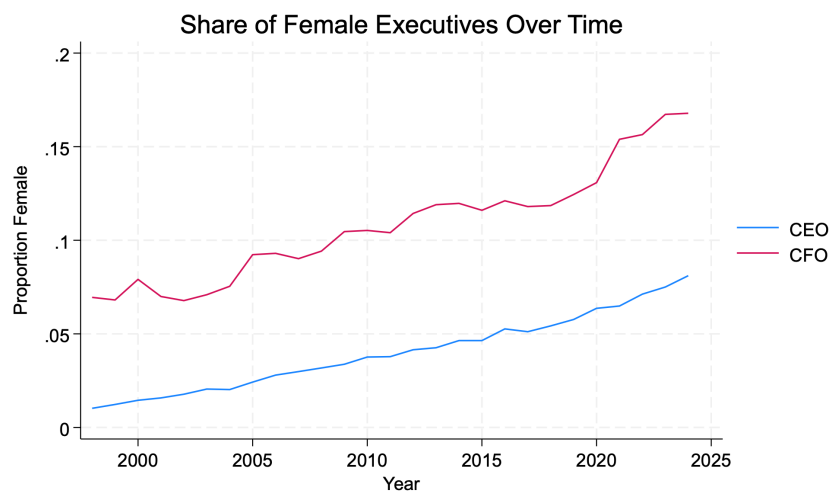


Figure A1: Share of executives who are female, 1998–2024.

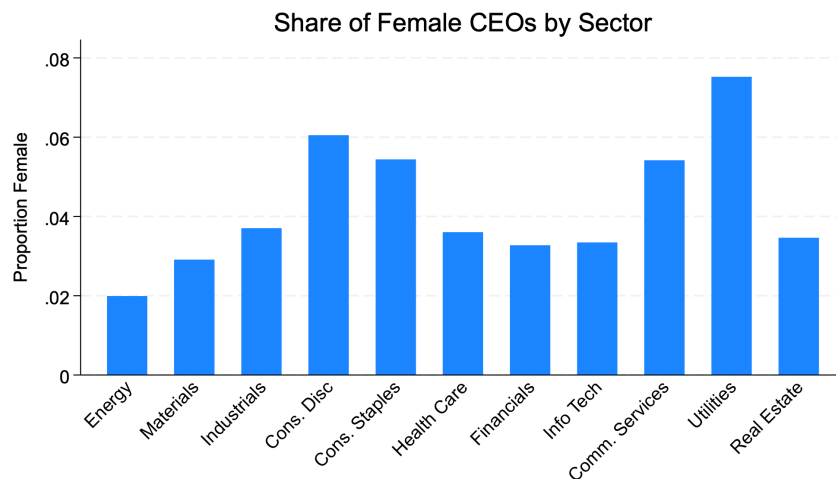


Figure A2: Female share of executives by GICS sector.

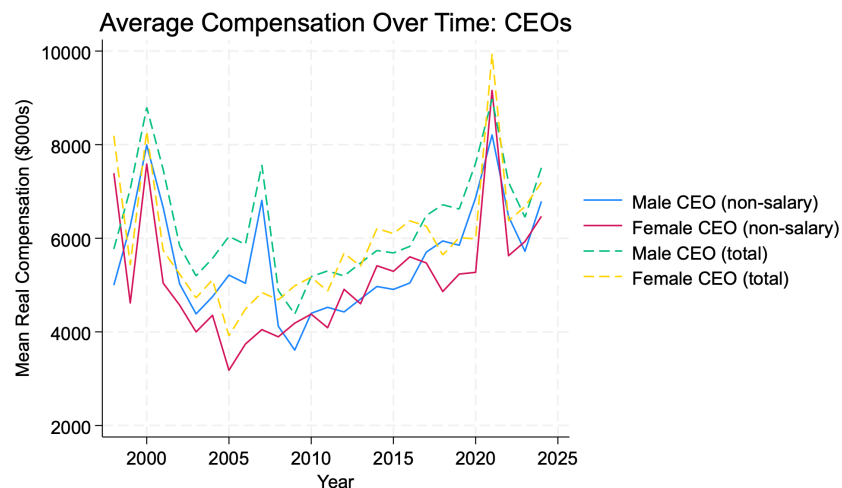


Figure A3: Mean real CEO compensation over time, by gender.

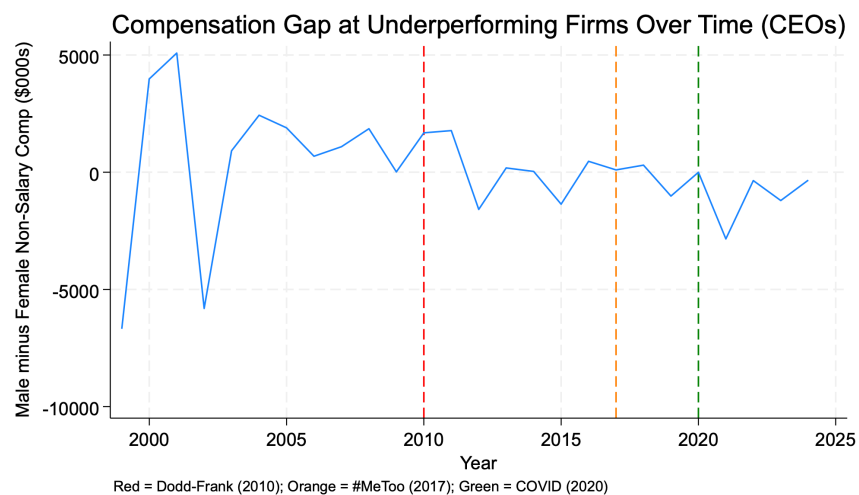


Figure A4: Male–female non-salary compensation gap at underperforming firms over time (CEOs, bottom third of industry market-value growth), with reference lines at 2010 and 2017.

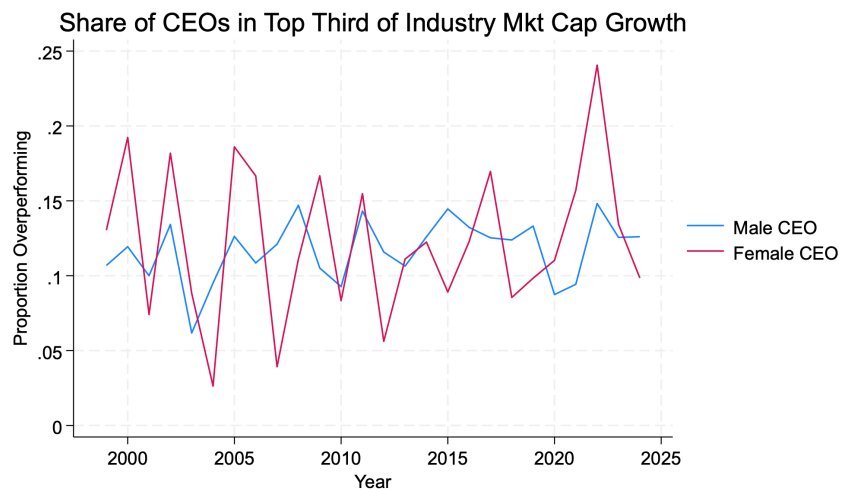


Figure A5: Share of CEOs at top-third firms, by gender.

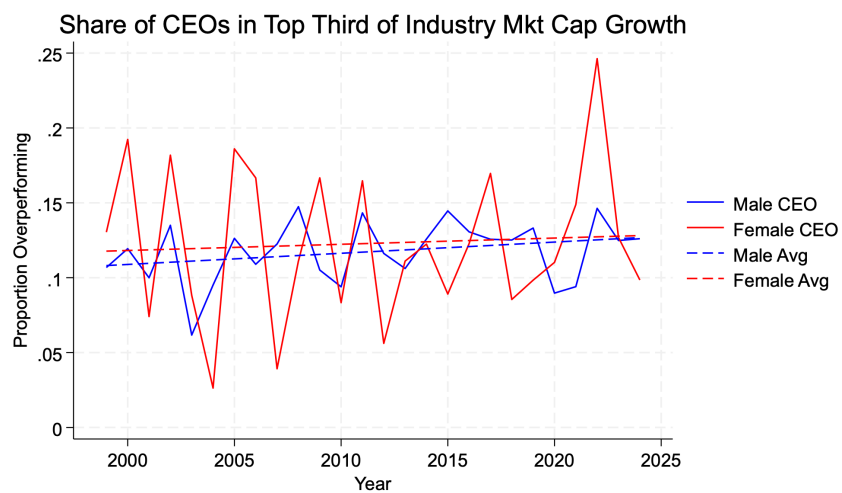


Figure A6: Share of CEOs at bottom-third firms, by gender.

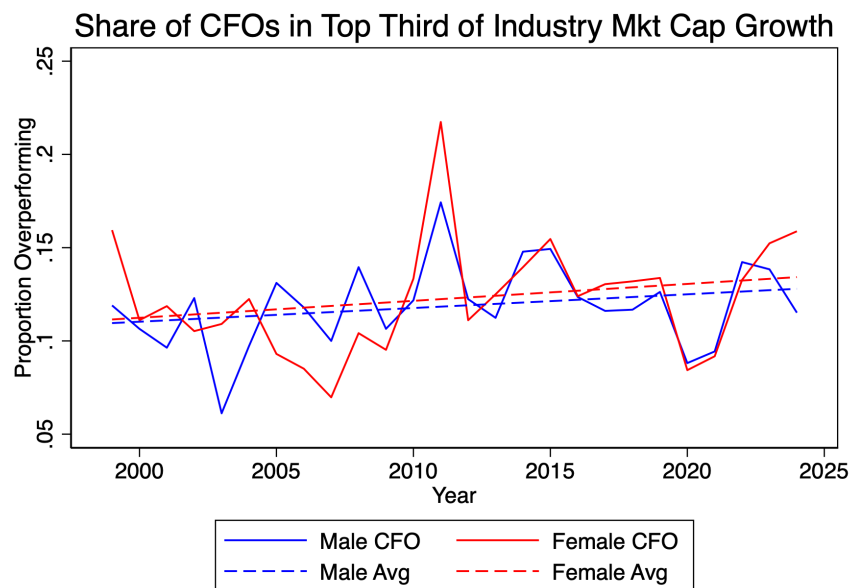


Figure A7: Share of CFOs at top-third firms, by gender.

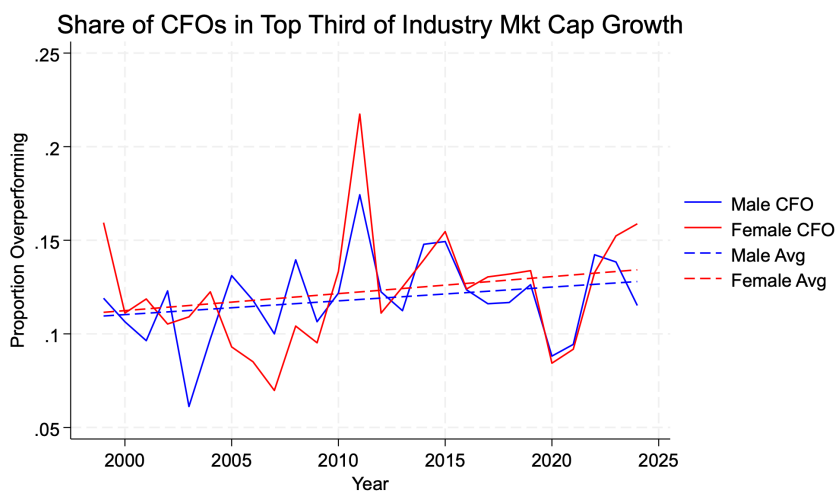


Figure A8: Share of CFOs at bottom-third firms, by gender.

A.8 Parallel-trends for the Dodd–Frank analysis

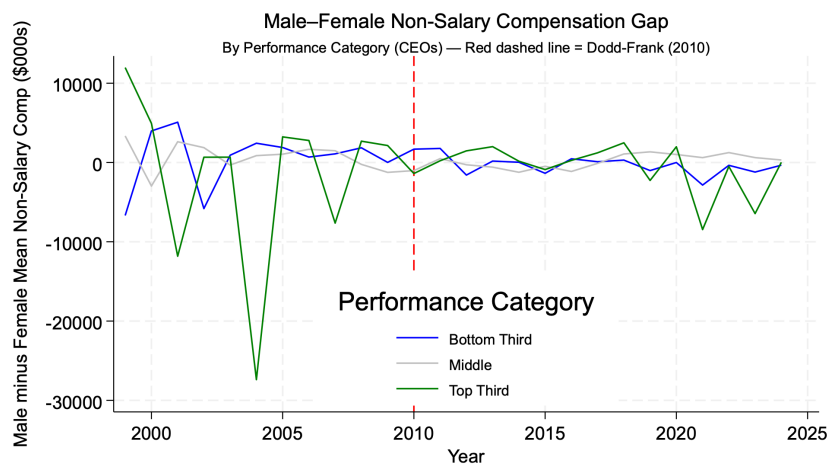


Figure A9: Male–female compensation gap by performance tercile around Dodd–Frank (levels). Used to assess parallel pre-trends; the groups do not trend in parallel before 2010.

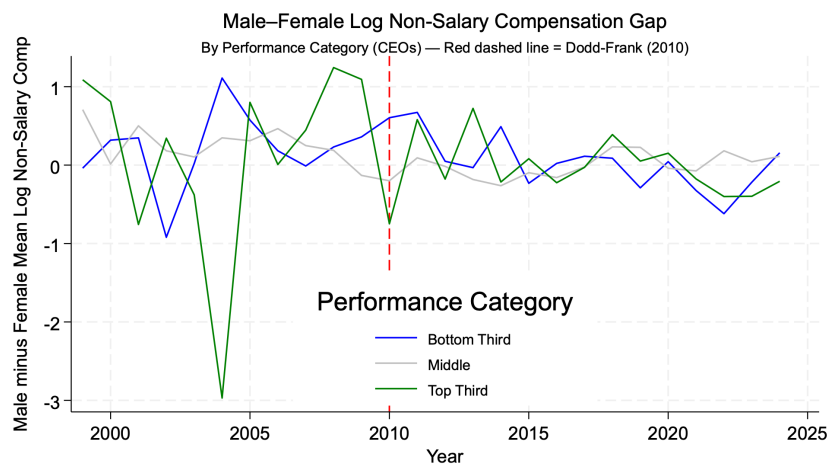


Figure A10: Male–female compensation gap by performance tercile around Dodd–Frank (logs). Used to assess parallel pre-trends; the groups do not trend in parallel before 2010.

A.9 Event-study coefficient plots

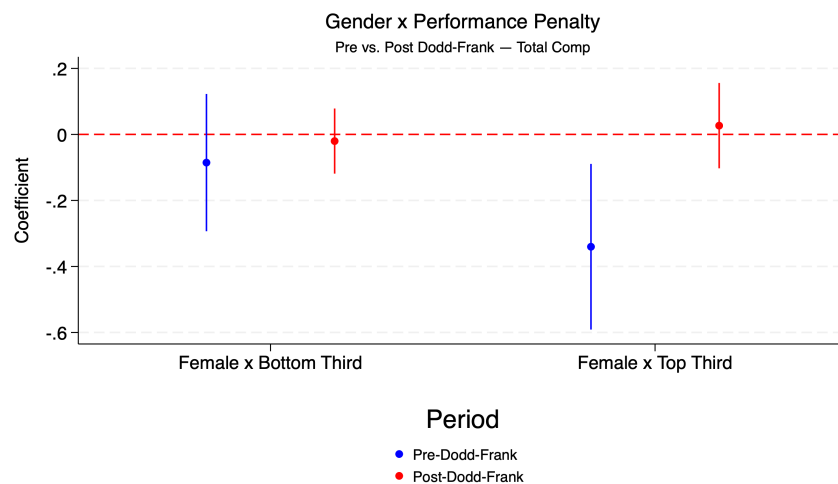


Figure A11: Dodd-Frank event study: female $\times$ performance interactions, pre vs. post 2010, total compensation (the non-salary version appears in the main text, Figure 2).

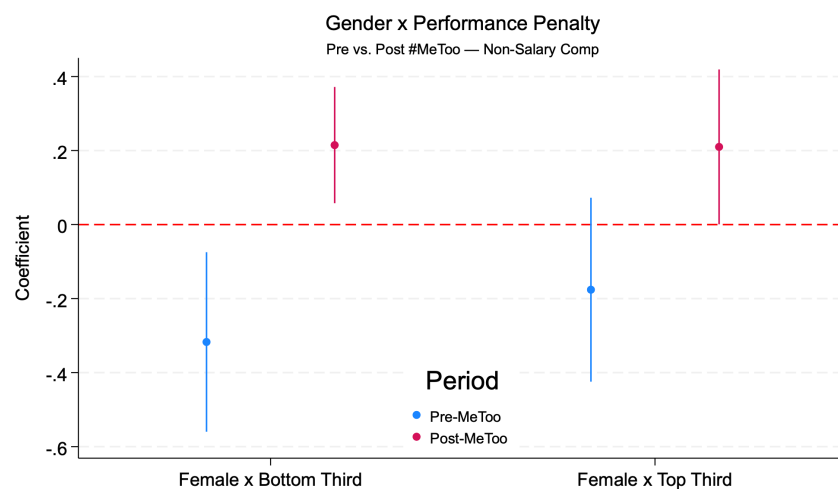


Figure A12: #MeToo event study: female $\times$ performance interactions, pre vs. post 2017, non-salary compensation.

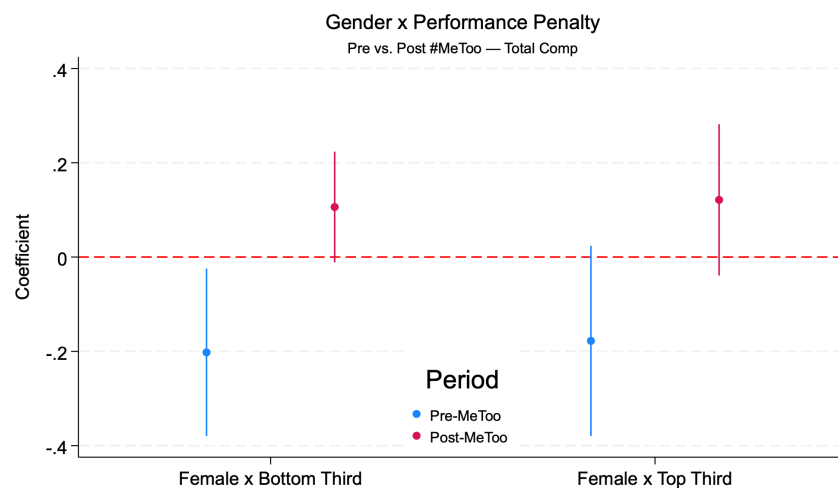


Figure A13: #MeToo event study: female $\times$ performance interactions, pre vs. post 2017, total compensation.

A.10 Age-tercile coefficient plots

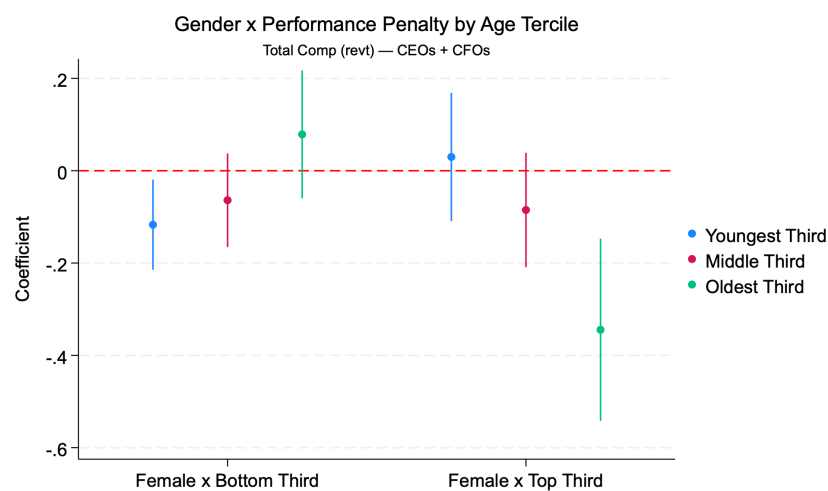


Figure A14: Age-tercile interactions, full specification, total compensation, revenue growth.

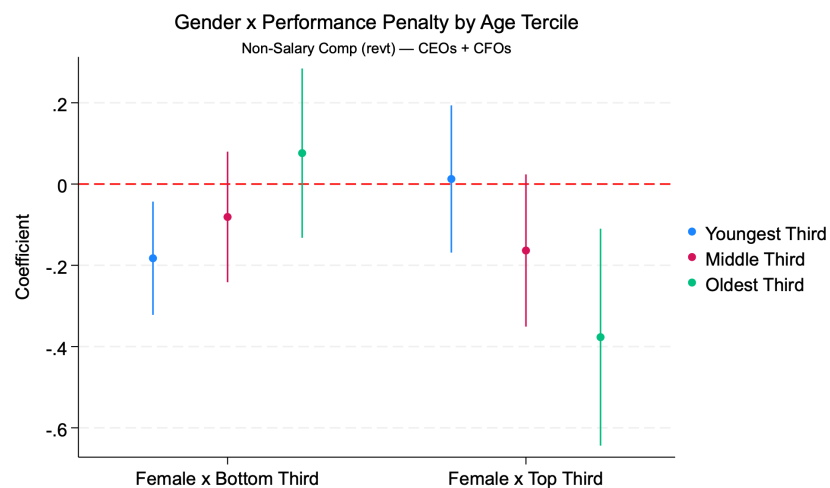


Figure A15: Age-tercile interactions, full specification, non-salary compensation, revenue growth.

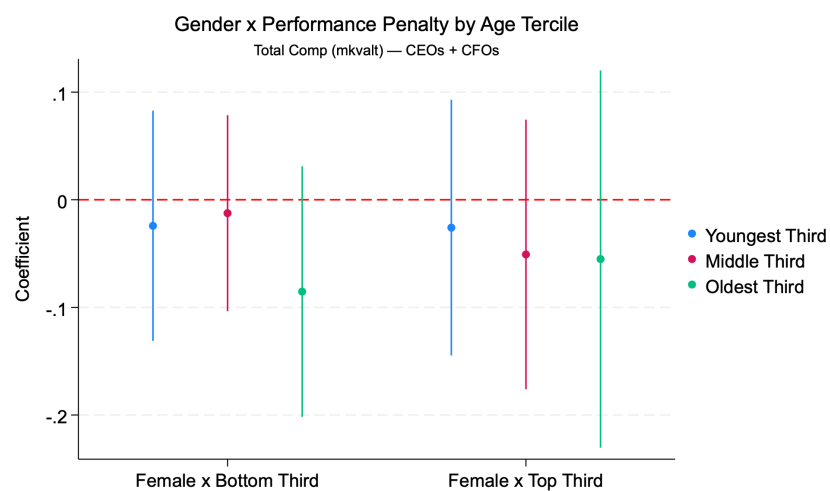


Figure A16: Age-tercile interactions, full specification, total compensation, market-value growth.

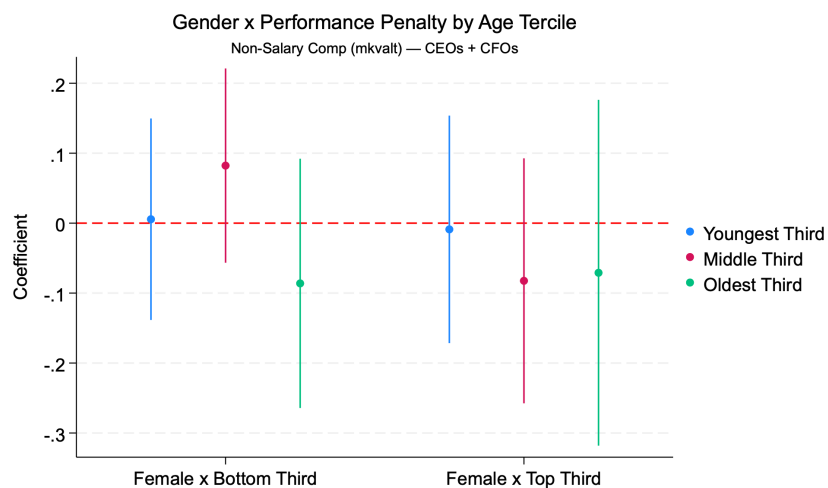


Figure A17: Age-tercile interactions, full specification, non-salary compensation, market-value growth.

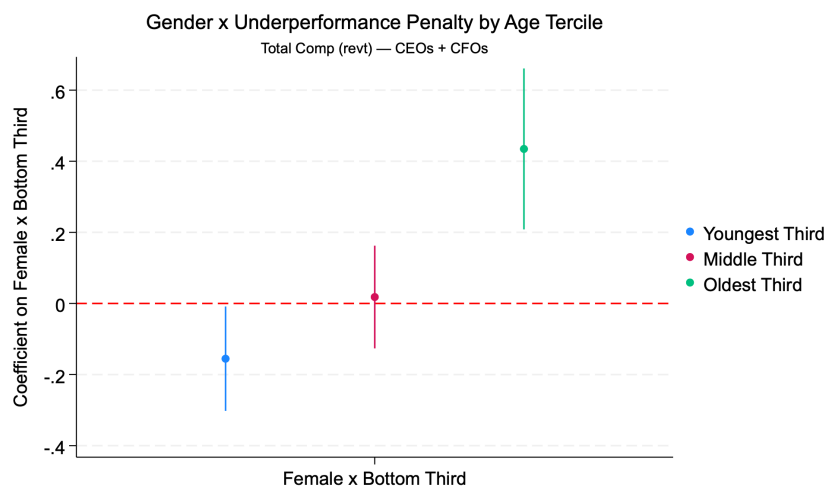


Figure A18: Age-tercile interactions, bottom vs. top, total compensation, revenue growth.

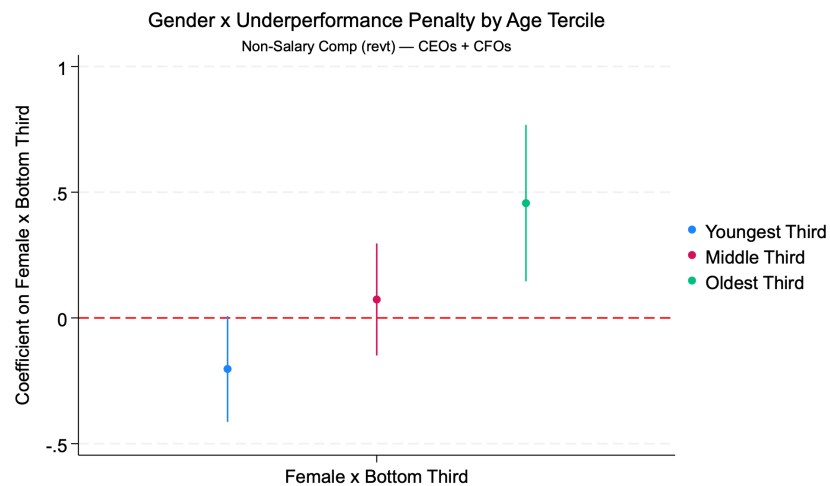


Figure A19: Age-tercile interactions, bottom vs. top, non-salary compensation, revenue growth.

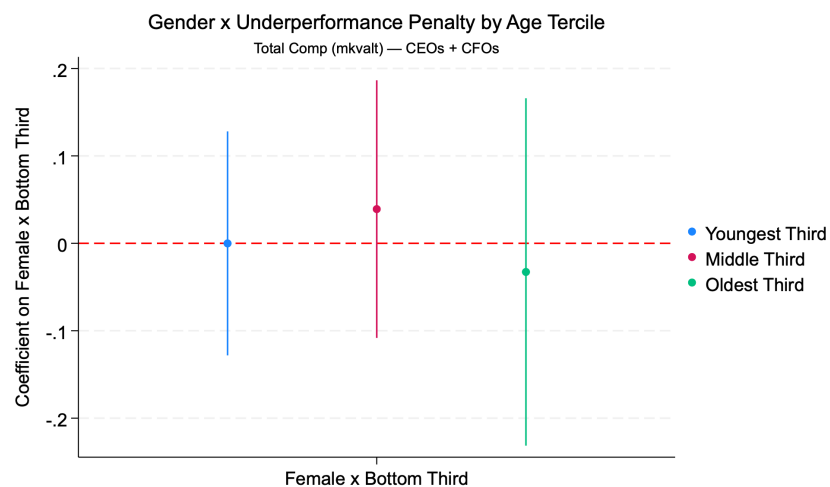


Figure A20: Age-tercile interactions, bottom vs. top, total compensation, market-value growth.

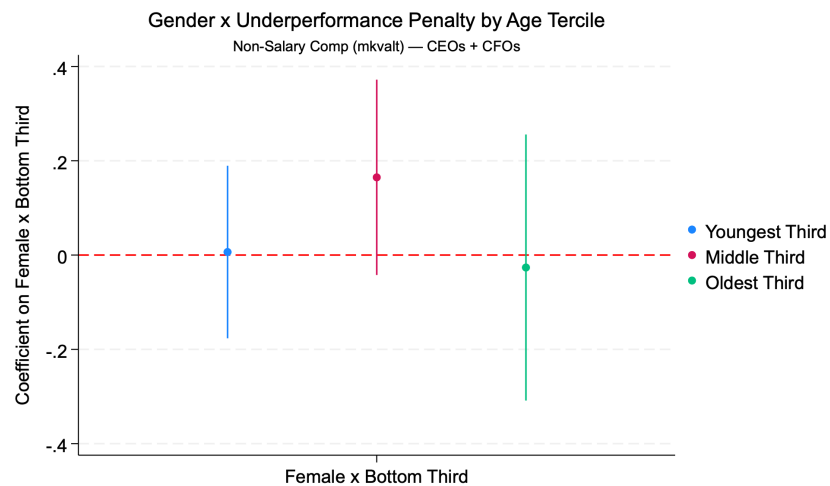


Figure A21: Age-tercile interactions, bottom vs. top, non-salary compensation, market-value growth.

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